

Development of an Embedded HPEC Telemetry Unit and Windshield HUD for the TUKZIE Rev 0 Platform



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Abstract

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Contents

1	Introduction	1
1.1	Background and motivation	1
1.2	Objectives of this study	2
1.2.1	Problems to be investigated	2
1.2.2	Purpose of the study	3
1.3	Scope and Limitations	4
1.3.1	Scope	4
1.3.2	Limitations	5
1.4	Plan of development	5
2	Literature Review	7
2.1	Review scope and evaluation framework	7
2.2	Light electric freight vehicles and last-mile logistics	7
2.3	Pavement roughness and vehicle ride smoothness	8
2.4	Inertial signal processing and vibration separation	9

2.5	Edge computing and real-time telemetry architecture	11
2.6	HUD design, attention, and visual workload	12
2.7	Cellular synchronisation and data integrity	13
2.8	Synthesis and research gap	14
3	Methodology	15
4	Results	16
4.1	Simulation Results	16
4.2	Experimental Results	16
5	Discussion	17
6	Conclusions	18
7	Recommendations	19
A	Additional Files and Schematics	26
A.1	Declaration of Artificial Intelligence Use	26
B	Addenda	28
B.1	Ethics Forms	28

Chapter 1

Introduction

1.1 Background and motivation

Rapid urbanisation is increasing demand for efficient passenger transport and urban goods delivery. The United Nations projects that approximately 68% of the world’s population will live in urban areas by 2050 [2]. This growth, together with the need to reduce transport emissions and operating costs, has encouraged the development of lightweight electric-drive vehicles for last-mile logistics. Within this context, the TUKZIE Flagship Programme seeks to engineer an energy-aware, secure and autonomous-ready vehicle platform for last-mile logistics and urban freight applications. The TUKZIE Rev 0, a 72V 2200W electric cargo trike, represents a testbed for integrating advanced telemetry and driver-assistance systems in resource-constrained environments.

The relevance of this platform is particularly clear in sub-Saharan African cities, where three-wheelers already support urban goods movement. A 2025 study of medium-size cargo delivery routes in Dar es Salaam found that an electric tricycle reduced operating cost per kilometre by approximately 45.5% relative to a motorcycle, 62.5% relative to a petrol tuk-tuk, and 86% relative to a light-duty car [3]. The reported values are route- and price-specific rather than universal forecasts, but they show why locally appropriate electric freight platforms warrant further engineering and field validation.

Traditional vehicle telemetry systems have relied heavily on “Head-Down Displays” (HDDs) or post-processing of logged data, both of which present significant limitations. HDDs require drivers to divert their gaze from the road, contributing to cognitive overload and attention capture—a phenomenon where the driver’s focus shifts away

from critical environmental cues [5, 8]. NHTSA guidance recommends that individual visual-manual glances away from the roadway should not exceed two seconds, with no more than twelve seconds of cumulative off-road glance time for a task [6]. This provides a measurable human-factors constraint, although it does not imply that every head-up presentation is inherently safe. Post-processing delays maintenance interventions and prevents real-time decision-making.

Recent advances in High-Performance Embedded Computing (HPEC) have enabled edge-based signal processing in vehicular applications, allowing for real-time sensor fusion and on-vehicle analytics [9]. Simultaneously, Head-Up Display (HUD) technology has matured, offering the potential to reduce downward glances by projecting selected information into the driver’s forward field of view [10, 11]. However, the integration of these technologies—particularly for low-cost, three-wheeled electric vehicles in developing contexts—remains an open challenge.

This study addresses this gap by developing an integrated HPEC telemetry unit and windshield HUD for the TUKZIE Rev 0, enabling real-time ride-smoothness characterisation and driver feedback.

The intended outcome is an integrated prototype demonstrated on the target or a representative vehicle under relevant operating conditions. This corresponds to a target of Technology Readiness Level 6, at which a representative prototype is demonstrated in a relevant environment [7]. It does not imply production qualification or approval for unrestricted road deployment.

1.2 Objectives of this study

1.2.1 Problems to be investigated

Transportation agencies and fleet operators face significant challenges in monitoring road health and vehicle performance cost-effectively. Reference-grade profiling equipment requires specialist instrumentation and operation, which limits the frequency and coverage of surveys in resource-constrained settings [13, 12]. Standard in-car displays often contribute to cognitive overload and attention capture, where drivers divert their gaze from the road to process telemetry [18]. Furthermore, in resource-constrained environments, there is a gap for a modular, low-latency system capable of edge-based signal processing

for ride characterisation while providing a safe, augmented-reality interface.

The engineering problem is therefore to acquire synchronised data reliably on a high-vibration, power-constrained vehicle; distinguish road-induced motion from vehicle-specific dynamics; maintain bounded processing and display latency; and preserve telemetry during intermittent cellular connectivity. These functions must be integrated without obstructing the driver’s view or making safety-critical behaviour dependent on a remote service [22].

Specifically, this study investigates the following research questions:

1. How accurately and repeatably can a low-cost edge-processing system characterise ride smoothness in real time using inertial sensors on a 72V electric cargo trike?
2. Which HUD information hierarchy, layout, and update strategy can present safety-critical telemetry while limiting visual clutter and driver distraction?
3. What end-to-end latency, data-loss, and recovery performance can be achieved across sensor acquisition, edge processing, local logging, and 4G/LTE synchronisation?
4. Which time- and frequency-domain features most effectively separate road-induced vibration from repeatable motor and powertrain vibration?

1.2.2 Purpose of the study

The significance of investigating these problems lies in bridging the gap between expensive, proprietary road-profiling equipment and the need for cost-effective, real-time monitoring solutions. By leveraging High-Performance Embedded Computing and low-cost inertial sensors, this study aims to provide a modular, low-latency system that delivers head-up telemetry while limiting unnecessary downward glances and avoiding additional visual clutter.

The findings will directly inform the development of the TUKZIE Rev 0 platform and contribute to the broader field of sustainable urban mobility by demonstrating a replicable, open-architecture approach to vehicle telemetry. This work aligns with the UCT Radar Remote Sensing Group’s focus on advanced sensing and the TUKZIE Flagship Programme’s mandate for energy-aware, secure vehicle platforms.

Furthermore, this research addresses the practical needs of fleet operators in developing regions, where infrastructure monitoring budgets are constrained and traditional data collection methods are often infeasible. By enabling continuous, vehicle-specific ride-condition screening, the proposed system could support route comparison, targeted inspection, and more informed maintenance planning.

1.3 Scope and Limitations

1.3.1 Scope

This study focuses exclusively on the TUKZIE Rev 0, a 72V 2200W electric cargo trike manufactured by SA Motorcycles [21]. The system integrates the following components:

- A hardware module housing inertial measurement units (IMUs), air-quality sensors, and environmental sensors.
- A multithreaded software architecture for real-time sensor fusion, telemetry processing, and ride-smoothness indexing.
- An optical Head-Up Display subsystem projecting critical telemetry (speed, battery state of charge, and navigation) and safety alerts onto the trike’s windshield.
- A 4G/LTE communication link for central database synchronisation.

The project is aligned with the UCT Radar Remote Sensing Group’s focus on advanced sensing and specifically addresses the “ride-smoothness” mandate of TUKZIE by isolating road-induced vibration from nominal motor and powertrain vibration using statistical feature extraction. The scope is limited to the TUKZIE Rev 0 platform and utilises low-cost inertial and environmental sensors processed at the edge using microcontroller and single-board computer platforms [12].

The software architecture follows a modular design, with separate threads for:

- High-frequency sensor polling (IMU at ≥ 100 Hz).
- Compute-heavy signal-processing algorithms (ride characterisation).

- Graphical HUD rendering.
- Networking stacks (MQTT/HTTP over 4G/LTE-M).

This separation ensures that no process blocks another [22].

1.3.2 Limitations

The following limitations are acknowledged:

- The study is limited to a single vehicle platform (TUKZIE Rev 0), which may affect generalisability to other vehicle types or configurations.
- Sensor calibration assumes nominal operating conditions; significant environmental variations (extreme temperatures and humidity) may affect accuracy.
- Edge-processing latency measurements are conducted in controlled test environments; real-world performance may vary with network conditions and electromagnetic interference.
- The HUD subsystem uses projected-display technology on the existing windshield, not full holographic or augmented-reality integration [10].
- Time constraints limit extensive field testing to urban routes only; rural and off-road conditions are not evaluated.
- The system is designed as a removable module to ensure that the vehicle can be quickly returned to a standard setup without obstructions [22].
- The 4G/LTE communication depends on network availability; data synchronisation may be delayed in areas with poor coverage.

1.4 Plan of development

This report is organised as follows:

Chapter 2: Literature Review—Reviews existing telemetry systems for electric vehicles, edge-computing architectures for vehicular applications, pavement condition-assessment methods, and Head-Up Display technologies. Key works in pavement roughness evaluation using inertial sensors [12, 23] and HUD design principles [10, 11, 28] are critically examined.

Chapter 3: System Design and Methodology—Presents the hardware architecture, sensor selection, and software framework for the integrated telemetry unit. The multithreaded architecture, sensor protocols (I2C, SPI, and UART), and edge-processing pipeline are detailed.

Chapter 4: Implementation—Details the fabrication process of the hardware module, HUD integration, and communication protocols. The PCB design, enclosure fabrication, and system assembly are described.

Chapter 5: Results and Discussion—Presents validation results for data ingestion accuracy, edge-processing latency analysis, ride-smoothness characterisation, and 4G/LTE data-synchronisation performance. Statistical analysis of sensor data and comparison with reference measurements are provided.

Chapter 6: Conclusions and Recommendations—Summarises the findings, evaluates the system against the stated objectives, and suggests future work, including potential integration of machine learning for predictive maintenance and extension to multi-vehicle fleet monitoring.

Chapter 2

Literature Review

2.1 Review scope and evaluation framework

The proposed system combines four fields that are often treated separately: pavement and ride-quality sensing, embedded signal processing, vehicular telemetry, and automotive Head-Up Display (HUD) design. The literature is therefore evaluated against the needs of the TUKZIE Rev 0 rather than only by reported classification accuracy. Relevant evidence must also address computational cost, sampling requirements, sensitivity to vehicle speed and mounting position, real-time latency, communication loss, and driver workload. This framework is important because a technique that performs well on a passenger car, smartphone, or laboratory simulator may not transfer directly to a lightweight three-wheeled cargo platform.

2.2 Light electric freight vehicles and last-mile logistics

Light electric freight vehicles can reduce the energy, space, and emissions associated with urban delivery, but their advantage depends on route length, payload, consolidation strategy, electricity supply, and the vehicle used for comparison. In Dar es Salaam, Sebwa et al. compared an electric cargo tricycle with motorcycles, petrol tuk-tuks, and a light-duty car on selected medium-size delivery routes [3]. The electric tricycle had the lowest reported operating cost, with savings ranging from 45.5% against motorcycles to 86%

against the light-duty car. The study also reported energy use of up to 0.54 kWh for a one-way trip and a 97.59% energy saving relative to the light-duty-car comparison [3]. It avoided the direct tailpipe emissions produced by the petrol vehicles. These results provide valuable regional evidence, although the underlying fuel prices, route choices, assumed payload, trip length, comparison basis, and omission of electricity-generation emissions limit direct transfer to Cape Town.

Evidence from Portland reaches a similar conclusion using a different system boundary. Saenz et al. combined operational GPS and warehouse data with vehicle, battery, fuel, and electricity life-cycle contributions, finding greenhouse-gas reductions of 51–72% for an electric-tricycle logistics service relative to conventional urban logistics [4]. The range is more informative than a single headline value: it shows that benefits change when partner operations and supporting logistics are included. For TUKZIE, the literature therefore justifies the electric cargo-trike context but does not by itself demonstrate that one prototype will reduce costs or emissions. The present project contributes enabling telemetry that can later measure route energy, utilisation, ride exposure, and operational reliability on the actual platform.

Three-wheel geometry and a compact chassis also make vehicle response an engineering concern rather than merely a logistics detail. Changes in payload position, tyre pressure, speed, and road surface can affect both stability and measured vibration. This strengthens the case for recording operating state alongside IMU measurements and for avoiding the direct transfer of passenger-car roughness thresholds to the TUKZIE platform.

2.3 Pavement roughness and vehicle ride smoothness

Road roughness and ride smoothness are related but not interchangeable concepts. The International Roughness Index (IRI) is calculated from a measured longitudinal road profile using a standard quarter-car simulation [13]. It provides a transferable engineering measure when the profile measurement and calibration procedures are controlled. By contrast, an accelerometer mounted on a vehicle measures the combined response of the road input, tyres, suspension, chassis, payload, speed, sensor orientation, and mounting location. Consequently, raw vertical acceleration cannot be interpreted as IRI without a validated mapping and suitable reference measurements.

González et al. demonstrated that road profiles can be classified from simulated axle and body accelerations, establishing the value of vehicle-response measurements for roughness

estimation [14]. The approach is attractive because it reuses vehicle dynamics rather than requiring a dedicated laser profiler. Its limitation is equally important: the inferred roughness depends on the assumed vehicle model and operating conditions. A model calibrated for a conventional four-wheeled vehicle cannot be transferred uncritically to the TUKZIE trike, whose wheel layout, suspension response, payload distribution, and low operating speed differ.

Smartphone and low-cost inertial sensing studies extend this response-based approach. Sattar et al. found that accelerometers and positioning sensors can support scalable road surface monitoring, but identified device placement, orientation, speed, sampling rate, and inconsistent ground truth as persistent sources of variation [15]. Alatoom and Smadi addressed cost and portability through an embedded framework using microcontroller and single-board computer platforms [12]. Their architecture is closer to the present project than a smartphone-only system because it permits controlled sensor mounting, deterministic sampling, and local processing. Nevertheless, published low-cost systems generally target passenger vehicles or generic road-anomaly detection; they do not establish a calibrated ride-smoothness measure for a three-wheeled electric cargo vehicle.

These findings support a deliberately bounded claim for this project. The TUKZIE unit should first produce a repeatable, vehicle-specific ride-smoothness index and event log. Correlation with IRI may be investigated when reference profile data are available, but the system should not label its output as IRI solely from uncalibrated chassis acceleration. Repeatability over repeated traversals, sensitivity to speed and payload, and agreement with a reference sensor or labelled route provide more defensible validation criteria.

2.4 Inertial signal processing and vibration separation

An IMU signal contains gravitational acceleration, orientation changes, road excitation, vehicle-body motion, motor and drivetrain vibration, sensor noise, and transient events. The processing pipeline must therefore preserve road-related information while removing components that would make comparisons between runs misleading. Orientation compensation or transformation into a vehicle-fixed frame is required before features from the nominally vertical axis are compared. Resampling and timestamp checks are also necessary because feature values become unreliable when samples are irregular or missing.

CHAPTER 2. LITERATURE REVIEW

The literature uses both time-domain and frequency-domain features. Root-mean-square acceleration, standard deviation, peak-to-peak amplitude, crest factor, jerk, and threshold counts are computationally inexpensive and interpretable. Frequency-domain energy and power spectral density can distinguish sustained narrow-band vibration from broadband road impacts. Bui et al. show that signal-processing-driven rough-road detection can be executed on an edge microcontroller, supporting the feasibility of local classification without continuous cloud processing [23]. However, threshold-based methods can overfit a particular vehicle and speed, while more complex classifiers can hide the physical reason for a detection and demand a larger labelled dataset.

Recent smartphone research illustrates both the opportunity and this limitation. Yiliguogqi et al. used vertical acceleration and roll-derived features, including standard deviation and interquartile range, with an SVM at a 10 Hz sampling rate to distinguish roughness classes [24]. The low sampling frequency and compact feature set are attractive for constrained hardware. The reported experiments classified the defined road-quality levels correctly in 80–100% of trials across four vehicles and repeated short road segments [24]. However, that range is tied to the authors’ phones, routes, labels, IRI thresholds, and limited test segments; it cannot be treated as an expected accuracy for the TUKZIE without retraining and independent validation. SVM or XGBoost models should therefore be considered as comparison methods after a transparent statistical baseline has been established, not as substitutes for calibration.

For the TUKZIE platform, separation of road excitation from motor and powertrain vibration requires an empirical baseline. Stationary tests at several motor speeds can identify repeatable spectral components associated with the powertrain. Coast-down and repeated route tests can then show which components persist without powered traction and which vary with the road surface. Windowed statistics should be normalised or stratified by vehicle speed, since the same spatial road feature produces a different temporal excitation as speed changes. Rather than relying on one feature, a small interpretable feature vector combining vertical RMS acceleration, jerk, robust peak measures, and energy in selected frequency bands offers a defensible balance between sensitivity and computational cost.

Whole-body vibration standards provide useful terminology but do not replace road-profile measurement. ISO 2631-1 defines methods for evaluating human exposure to whole-body vibration [16]. Its frequency-weighted measures can inform a comfort-oriented index, whereas IRI remains a road-profile statistic. Reporting these as separate outputs would prevent the common error of treating passenger comfort, vehicle response, and pavement geometry as the same quantity.

2.5 Edge computing and real-time telemetry architecture

Edge computing moves computation closer to the sensors to reduce response time, bandwidth use, and dependence on a remote service [17]. These benefits directly match the TUKZIE use case: the HUD and safety alerts must continue to operate when cellular coverage is poor, and transmitting every raw high-frequency sample would consume more bandwidth and energy than transmitting compact features and events. The embedded HPEC concept also enables several sensor streams to be timestamped and fused before data leave the vehicle [9].

The term “high performance” must nevertheless be interpreted relative to the platform. The relevant performance is not maximum throughput, but predictable completion of time-sensitive work within a constrained power and thermal budget. A multithreaded design can isolate high-rate sensor acquisition from feature extraction, HUD rendering, local storage, and networking, as required by the project brief [22]. Threads alone do not guarantee real-time behaviour: shared locks, blocking input/output, memory allocation, and unbounded queues can still cause missed samples or stale displays.

A producer–consumer architecture is therefore appropriate. The acquisition task should timestamp samples and place them into bounded buffers; processing tasks should consume complete windows; the HUD should read the most recent validated state without waiting for network activity; and the communication task should transmit queued summaries asynchronously. Overload behaviour must be explicit. Dropping an old display frame may be acceptable, whereas silently losing an IMU window or corrupting timestamps is not. Performance should be reported as distributions of acquisition jitter, processing time, display age, queue occupancy, and end-to-end latency rather than as an average alone.

Pérez-González et al. provide a useful contemporary comparison through a field-tested electric-racing telemetry system that combines ESP32 acquisition, Raspberry Pi 4B edge analytics, Node-RED visualisation, and LoRaWAN communication [25]. Its modular division between deterministic acquisition and higher-level processing supports the architecture proposed here. The racing study reports a 99% packet-delivery ratio and sub-second telemetry latency during its field trials [25]. These results demonstrate feasibility for that track, gateway placement, message rate, and radio configuration; they do not establish LoRaWAN as universally superior in moving vehicles. LoRaWAN offers low-power long-range packets when gateways are available, whereas 4G/LTE provides

wider public-network reach and direct Internet connectivity at the cost of subscription, coverage dependence, and less predictable delay. The comparison supports retaining local logging and asynchronous communication regardless of which radio is selected.

2.6 HUD design, attention, and visual workload

HUDs reduce the need for large downward eye movements, but their position in the forward field of view does not make them automatically safe. Liu reported that HUD use changes attention demand and driving performance, showing that display location and cognitive processing must be evaluated together [5]. Smith et al. similarly found that conventional head-down-display assessment methods do not fully capture HUD behaviour and that both driving and secondary-task performance should be considered [19]. The design problem is therefore not simply to project more telemetry onto the windshield.

Windshield-display research identifies a design space involving location, visual depth, contrast, information density, and the relationship between graphics and the external scene [28]. Peripheral presentation can support awareness, but misaligned or excessive graphics may compete with hazards for attention [8]. Optical quality also depends on the windshield and projection system; distortion, double images, ambient illumination, and viewing position affect legibility [10]. These constraints are especially relevant to a removable, low-cost projector mounted on a trike, where vibration and changing daylight are likely to be more severe than in an integrated production vehicle.

Ghosting arises because the inner and outer windshield surfaces can produce spatially separated reflections of the same projected content. Wedge-shaped glass or PVB interlayers can reduce this separation for a defined optical geometry, but manufacturing tolerances and movement away from the design viewing position prevent a universal correction [10, 27]. The appropriate acceptance criterion is therefore empirical legibility across the intended viewing region rather than a wedge angle copied from another vehicle. For example, Qin et al. calculated approximately 0.62 mrad for overlap of the primary and ghost images in their particular model [27]; this is a case-specific result rather than a TUKZIE design value. The eye box—the region in which the complete virtual image remains visible—must likewise be measured for the TUKZIE installation. Published automotive systems use different eye-box dimensions according to their field of view and optical architecture, so a nominal dimension is a design benchmark rather than a guaranteed requirement.

Complexity is a central risk. Currano et al. showed that HUD complexity influences driver perceptions of automated vehicles [20], while cognitive-load experiments on connected HUDs demonstrate that adding screens or information channels can increase mental demand [18]. The TUKZIE HUD should therefore use a stable information hierarchy: persistent speed and battery state, brief prioritised safety alerts, and navigation cues only when required. Decorative graphics, rapidly changing values, and simultaneous low-priority notifications should be excluded. The system should also adopt fail-safe behaviour when data are stale, for example by removing or clearly marking invalid values rather than continuing to display them as current.

Park and Im found symbol count to be the most influential HUD-interface factor in their semi-automated-driving study and recommended displaying fewer than six symbols simultaneously [26]. This is a useful initial ceiling for the prototype, not a universal safety threshold: the meaning, salience, location, duration, and driving context of the symbols remain important. Combined with the NHTSA two-second glance guidance [6], it supports a testable design requirement for a sparse, prioritised interface.

Evaluation should combine technical and human-centred measures. Technical measures include rendering time, update rate, luminance or contrast under representative lighting, and the age of displayed telemetry. Human-centred evaluation can use task completion, missed-event counts, glance behaviour, perceived workload, and structured feedback during controlled low-risk trials. This is more defensible than asserting that a HUD is safer solely because it is head-up.

2.7 Cellular synchronisation and data integrity

Cellular communication extends local telemetry to fleet and maintenance applications, but coverage and delay are outside the embedded controller’s direct control. The architecture should consequently separate the real-time control path from remote synchronisation. HUD operation and local event detection must not wait for a 4G/LTE response. Each record should carry a monotonic sample timestamp, a route or session identifier, sensor-quality flags, and a sequence number so that the server can detect gaps and duplicates.

MQTT is suitable for compact publish–subscribe telemetry, whereas HTTP is useful for configuration, bulk upload, and conventional database interfaces. Protocol choice alone does not ensure reliability. A store-and-forward queue, bounded retry policy, acknowledgement strategy, and reconnection test are required. The appropriate performance

measures are local data completeness, queued backlog, synchronisation delay, duplicate rate, and recovery after an induced outage. These measures directly address the project’s remote data-synchronisation deliverable [22].

2.8 Synthesis and research gap

Existing studies establish that low-cost inertial sensors can identify road anomalies, edge devices can process sensor windows locally, and HUDs can reduce downward glances. They also expose three limitations. First, acceleration-based roughness estimates are strongly dependent on the vehicle, speed, mounting, and calibration. Second, edge architectures are often evaluated by algorithm accuracy or mean latency without reporting jitter, queue behaviour, and outage recovery. Third, HUD benefits diminish when visual complexity, optical limitations, and cognitive workload are ignored.

No reviewed work integrates these concerns for a low-cost, removable telemetry and windshield-HUD module designed specifically for the vibration, payload variation, limited on-board resources, and intermittent connectivity of a lightweight electric cargo trike in an emerging-market context. High-end passenger vehicles integrate telemetry and optically engineered HUDs, while low-cost road-sensing and IoV studies usually investigate their subsystems separately. This project addresses that gap by combining controlled IMU mounting, vehicle-specific vibration baselining, interpretable edge features, non-blocking local processing, store-and-forward telemetry, and a minimal HUD information hierarchy. The contribution is therefore not merely the coexistence of a sensor and display. It is the design and validation of an integrated architecture whose ride-smoothness repeatability, latency, data integrity, and presentation safety can be measured explicitly.

Chapter 3

Methodology

This is what I did to test and confirm my hypothesis.

You may want to split this chapter into sub chapters depending on your design. I suggest you change the title to something more specific to your project.

This is where you describe your design process in detail, from component/device selection to actual design implementation, to how you tested your system. Remember detail is important in technical writing. Do not just write I used a computer give the computer specifications or the oscilloscopes part number. Describe the system in enough detail so that someone else can replicate your design as well as your testing methodology.

If you use or design code for your system, represent it as flow diagrams in text.

IMPORTANT: Include a motivation for your selection of an appropriate technique, or engineering or IT tool to solve your project problem. Discuss any limitations if appropriate.

Chapter 4

Results

These are the results I found from my investigation.

Present your results in a suitable format using tables and graphs where necessary. Remember to refer to them in text and caption them properly.

4.1 Simulation Results

4.2 Experimental Results

Chapter 5

Discussion

Here is what the results mean and how they tie to existing literature...

Discuss the relevance of your results and how they fit into the theoretical work you described in your literature review.

Chapter 6

Conclusions

These are the conclusions from the investigation and how the investigation changes things in this field or contributes to current knowledge...

Draw suitable and intelligent conclusions from your results and subsequent discussion.

Chapter 7

Recommendations

Make sensible recommendations for further work.

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Appendix A

Additional Files and Schematics

Add any information here that you would like to have in your project but is not necessary in the main text. Remember to refer to it in the main text. Separate your appendices based on what they are for example. Equation derivations in Appendix A and code in Appendix B etc.

IMPORTANT: Appendix A (see the table below) should provide a summary of how you have met the GAs associated with the course, and where in the report the evidence can be found.

If you have used AI in writing your report, you need to provide details in one of the appendices of how you used it.

If appropriate, in a subsequent appendix, provide a link to any GitHub repository where the code and additional materials for your project can be found.

A.1 Declaration of Artificial Intelligence Use

Artificial intelligence tools were used to assist with clarifying the organisation of this report, improving the alignment and consistency of its presentation, refining wording, and checking LaTeX formatting. All AI-assisted suggestions were reviewed by the author. The author remains responsible for the report's technical content, analysis, interpretations, and final editorial decisions.

A.1. DECLARATION OF ARTIFICIAL INTELLIGENCE USE

GA	Requirement	Justification and section in the report
1	Problem-solving	Description here
4	Investigations, experiments and data analysis	Description here
5	Use of engineering tools	Description here
6	Professional and technical communication (Long report)	Description here
8	Individual work	Description here
9	Independent learning ability	Description here

Appendix B

Addenda

B.1 Ethics Forms